

UNIT 1 - Introduction to Data Structures

Introduction: Basic Terminology, Elementary Data Organization, Built in Data Types in C. Algorithm, Efficiency of an Algorithm, Time and Space Complexity, Asymptotic notations: Big Oh, Big Theta and Big Omega, Time-Space trade-off. Abstract Data Types (ADT)

Arrays: Definition, Single and Multidimensional Arrays, Representation of Arrays: Row Major Order, and Column Major Order, Derivation of Index Formulae for 1-D, 2-D, 3-D and n-D Array Application of arrays, Sparse Matrices and their representations.

Linked lists: Array Implementation and Pointer Implementation of Singly Linked Lists, Doubly Linked List, Circularly Linked List, Operations on a Linked List. Insertion, Deletion, Traversal, Polynomial Representation and Addition Subtraction & Multiplications of Single variable & Two variables Polynomial.

◇ 1. What is Data Structure?

- A **Data Structure** is a **way to store and organize data** in computer memory so that it can be used **efficiently**.
- It helps in **performing operations** like searching, sorting, inserting, deleting, and updating data easily.

Example:

- Think of a cupboard — arranging clothes properly makes it easier to find them.
- Similarly, data structures organize data for easy access.

Common Data Structures:

→ Array, Linked List, Stack, Queue, Tree, Graph, Hash Table

◇ 2. Basic Terminology

Term	Meaning	Example
Data	Raw facts or figures.	10, 25, "Gautam"
Information	Processed data with meaning.	"Gautam scored 90 marks"
Data Item	Smallest unit of data.	Roll number = 101
Group Item	Set of related data items.	Student record = {Name, Roll, Marks}
Record	Collection of related fields.	One student's data
File	Collection of related records.	File containing data of all students
Field	Single attribute of record.	"Name" field in student record

◇ 3. Elementary Data Organization

- Data can be arranged in **two main ways**:

Type	Description	Example
Linear Data Structure	Data elements arranged in sequence.	Array, Linked List
Non-linear Data Structure	Data elements connected in hierarchy or network.	Tree, Graph

Example:

- Linear → Students standing in a queue (one after another)
- Non-linear → Family tree (parent-child relationships)

◇ 4. Built-in Data Types in C

C language provides **built-in (primitive) data types** used to build complex structures.

Data Type	Description	Example
int	Integer values	<code>int a = 10;</code>
float	Decimal numbers	<code>float b = 3.14;</code>
char	Single character	<code>char c = 'G';</code>
double	Large decimal numbers	<code>double d = 10.234;</code>
void	Represents no value	Used in functions

👉 **Note:** All complex data structures (like arrays, stacks, etc.) are made using these basic types.

◇ 5. Algorithm

- An **Algorithm** is a **step-by-step process** to solve a problem.
- It takes some **input**, performs **operations**, and gives **output**.

Example:

Algorithm to find the sum of two numbers

- 1 Start
- 2 Read numbers A and B
- 3 Add them → $SUM = A + B$
- 4 Print SUM
- 5 Stop

Characteristics of a Good Algorithm:

- Has **input(s)** and **output(s)**

- Each step is **clear** and **finite**
- Should **end after some steps**
- Should be **effective and correct**

◇ 6. Efficiency of an Algorithm

Efficiency tells how good an algorithm is. It depends on two factors:

Type	Meaning
Time Efficiency	How fast the program runs
Space Efficiency	How much memory it uses

Example:

- Bubble sort takes more time than Quick sort → less time efficient.
- Using extra memory (like temporary array) can increase space usage.

◇ 7. Time and Space Complexity

(a) Time Complexity

→ Time taken by an algorithm to execute completely.

- Depends on **number of operations** and **input size (n)**.

Example:

If loop runs n times → Time complexity = **$O(n)$**

(b) Space Complexity

→ Total memory required by an algorithm.

Includes:

- Input data size
- Temporary variables
- Recursion stack (if any)

Example:

If algorithm uses constant extra space → Space = **$O(1)$**

◇ 8. Asymptotic Notations

Used to measure **performance (growth rate)** of algorithms.

Notation	Symbol	Meaning	Example
Big O	$O(f(n))$	Upper bound → Worst case	$O(n^2)$ for Bubble Sort
Big Ω	$\Omega(f(n))$	Lower bound → Best case	$\Omega(n)$ for Linear Search
Big Θ	$\Theta(f(n))$	Tight bound → Average case	$\Theta(n \log n)$ for Merge Sort

Example:

For Bubble Sort

- Best case $\rightarrow \Omega(n)$
- Average case $\rightarrow \Theta(n^2)$
- Worst case $\rightarrow O(n^2)$

Graph Idea:

If input size increases, execution time also increases — asymptotic notation helps compare algorithms easily.

◇ 9. Time–Space Trade-off

- It is a **compromise** between **speed** and **memory**.
- Sometimes we use **more memory** to make the program **faster**, or vice versa.

Case	Explanation
Using lookup tables	Space $\uparrow \rightarrow$ Time $\downarrow$ (Faster)
Computing every time	Space $\downarrow \rightarrow$ Time $\uparrow$ (Slower)

Example:

- Storing pre-computed values of $\sin(x) \rightarrow$ saves time but uses memory.
- Calculating $\sin(x)$ every time $\rightarrow$ saves space but takes time.

◇ 10. Abstract Data Type (ADT)

- **ADT** defines **what operations can be done** on data, not **how** they are done.
- It hides internal details (implementation).

Example – Stack ADT:

Operations:

1. `push()` – add element
2. `pop()` – remove element
3. `peek()` – check top element

◇ 1. Definition of Array

- An **Array** is a **collection of elements of the same data type** stored in **contiguous (continuous) memory locations**.
- Each element can be accessed using an **index** (position number).

- Index always starts from **0** in C, C++, and Python.

Example (1-D array in C):

```
int marks[5] = {90, 85, 78, 88, 92};
```

- Here `marks[0] = 90`, `marks[1] = 85`, etc.
- All 5 values are integers stored one after another in memory.

◇ 2. Types of Arrays

(a) Single Dimensional Array (1-D)

- A **linear list** of elements.
- Accessed using **one index**.

Example: `int roll[5] = {1, 2, 3, 4, 5};`

- Roll numbers stored in a straight line (like a row).

Visualization:

Index →	0	1	2	3	4
Value →	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]

(b) Multi-Dimensional Array

When an array has **more than one dimension** (rows, columns, etc.).

(i) Two-Dimensional Array (2-D)

- Like a **table or matrix** (rows × columns).

Example:

```
int matrix[2][3] = { {1, 2, 3}, {4, 5, 6} };
```

Visualization:

Row 0 →	[1	2	3]
Row 1 →	[4	5	6]

- Access using `matrix[row][column]`.

Example: `matrix[1][2] = 6`

(ii) Three-Dimensional Array (3-D)

- Like a **cube of data**.

- Accessed using **3 indexes**.

Example:

```
int cube[2][2][2] = {
    {{1,2},{3,4}},
    {{5,6},{7,8}}
};
```

- Access element → `cube[layer][row][col]`

(iii) *n-Dimensional Array*

- Arrays can have any number of dimensions.
- But in real-world programs, we rarely use beyond 3D.

◇ 3. Representation of Arrays in Memory

- Arrays are stored **sequentially** in memory (continuous blocks).
- For **multidimensional arrays**, elements are stored either in:
 - **Row Major Order**
 - **Column Major Order**

(a) Row Major Order (used in C/C++)

- The **complete first row** is stored first, then second row, and so on.

Example:

For a 2×3 array

```
A[2][3] = { {1, 2, 3},
             {4, 5, 6} }
```

Stored in memory as:

1	2	3	4	5	6
---	---	---	---	---	---

(b) Column Major Order (used in FORTRAN, MATLAB)

- The **complete first column** is stored first, then second column, and so on.

Stored as:

1	4	2	5	3	6
---	---	---	---	---	---

◇ 4. Derivation of Index Formula

Let

- **Base Address (BA)** = Address of the first element
- **Size** = Number of bytes per element
- **Index starts from LB (Lower Bound)** → usually 0

◇ 5. Applications of Arrays

✓ Used where **same-type elements** need to be stored and accessed quickly.

Application	Example
Storing marks of students	marks [100]
Matrix operations	Addition, Multiplication
Searching & Sorting	Linear search, Bubble sort
Storing images	2D pixel arrays
Simulation and Data Tables	Sensor readings, daily temperatures

◇ 6. Sparse Matrix

► What is a Sparse Matrix?

A **sparse matrix** is a **matrix with mostly zero elements**.

Instead of storing all zeros, we store only **non-zero elements** to **save memory**.

Example:

Matrix:

```
0  0  5
0  8  0
0  0  0
```

Here only two elements (5, 8) are non-zero.

► Representations of Sparse Matrix

(a) 3-Tuple (Triplet) Representation

We store **row, column, and value** of only non-zero elements.

Row	Column	Value
0	2	5
1	1	8

We also store matrix size and total non-zero elements.

Final table:

Row	Column	Value
3	3	2
0	2	5
1	1	8

(b) Array of Linked Lists

- Each row can be represented as a **linked list** of non-zero elements.
- Useful for **dynamic** storage.

► Advantages of Sparse Matrix Representation

1. Saves memory space.
2. Faster processing for matrix operations.
3. Useful in scientific and engineering computations.

► Disadvantages

1. Complex to implement.
2. Random access becomes difficult.

◇ 1. What is a Linked List?

- A **Linked List** is a **collection of nodes** where each node contains:
 - **Data** – actual information
 - **Pointer (link)** – address of the next node
- Unlike arrays, **linked lists do not store elements in continuous memory**.
- Each node is connected using **pointers**.



Structure of a Node in C:

```
struct Node {  
    int data;  
    struct Node* next;  
};
```



Comparison: Array vs Linked List

Feature	Array	Linked List
Memory	Continuous	Random
Size	Fixed	Can grow/shrink
Insertion/Deletion	Costly	Easier
Access	Direct (via index)	Sequential (via traversal)
Implementation	Simple	Needs pointers

◇ 2. Types of Linked Lists

(a) Singly Linked List

- Each node has **data** and **next pointer**.
- Last node points to **NULL**.

Diagram:

[10 | *] → [20 | *] → [30 | NULL]

Structure:

```
struct Node {  
    int data;  
    struct Node *next;  
};
```

(b) Doubly Linked List

- Each node has **three parts**:
 - Pointer to previous node
 - Data
 - Pointer to next node

Diagram:

NULL ← [10 | * | *] ↔ [20 | * | *] ↔ [30 | * | NULL]

Structure:

```
struct Node {  
    struct Node *prev;  
    int data;  
    struct Node *next;  
};
```

Advantages:

- Can traverse **both forward and backward**.
- Easier deletion (no need to track previous node separately).

(c) Circular Linked List

- Last node's next pointer points back to the **first node** (not NULL).
- Can be **singly** or **doubly** circular.

Diagram (Singly Circular):

[10 | *] → [20 | *] → [30 | *] ↪ (points back to first)

Use:

- Useful in applications like **round-robin scheduling** or **music playlists**.

◇ 3. Implementation of Linked List

(a) Array Implementation

- We use arrays to simulate links using **index values**.
- Less flexible (fixed size).

Example:

```
struct Node {  
    int data;  
    int next; // index of next node in array  
};
```

(b) Pointer Implementation

- Each node dynamically created using `malloc()` in C or `new` in C++.
- Most common and flexible method.

Example:

```
struct Node* head = NULL;  
head = (struct Node*)malloc(sizeof(struct Node));  
head->data = 10;  
head->next = NULL;
```

◇ 4. Operations on Linked List

(a) Traversal

→ Visiting each node one by one.

Algorithm:

1. Start from head.
2. Print data of current node.
3. Move to next node until NULL.

Example (C Code):

```
void traverse(struct Node* head) {  
    struct Node* temp = head;  
    while(temp != NULL) {
```

```
        printf("%d ", temp->data);  
        temp = temp->next;  
    }  
}
```

(b) Insertion

Adding new node.

Cases:

1. At beginning
2. At end
3. After a specific node

Example (At Beginning):

```
void insertAtBeg(struct Node** head, int val) {  
    struct Node* newNode = (struct Node*)malloc(sizeof(struct  
Node));  
    newNode->data = val;  
    newNode->next = *head;  
    *head = newNode;  
}
```

(c) Deletion

Removing a node.

Cases:

1. Delete from beginning
2. Delete from end
3. Delete a specific value

Example (Delete from Beginning):

```
void deleteBeg(struct Node** head) {  
    struct Node* temp = *head;  
    *head = temp->next;  
    free(temp);  
}
```

(d) Searching

- Traverse list until desired data is found.

Example:

```
int search(struct Node* head, int key) {
    struct Node* temp = head;
    while(temp != NULL) {
        if(temp->data == key)
            return 1;
        temp = temp->next;
    }
    return 0;
}
```

◇ 5. Polynomial Representation using Linked List

A **polynomial** can be written as:

$$P(x) = 7x^3 + 5x^2 + 3x + 9$$

Each term can be stored in a node with:

- **Coefficient**
- **Exponent**
- **Pointer to next term**

Structure for Polynomial Node:

```
struct PolyNode {
    int coeff;    // coefficient
    int exp;      // exponent
    struct PolyNode* next;
};
```

Representation in Linked List:

[7 | 3 | *] → [5 | 2 | *] → [3 | 1 | *] → [9 | 0 | NULL]

◇ 6. Polynomial Operations

(a) Addition of Two Polynomials

Steps:

1. Traverse both lists simultaneously.
2. If exponents are same → add coefficients.
3. If exponent of one is greater → copy that term.

4. Continue until both lists end.

Example:

$$P1 = 7x^3 + 5x^2 + 3x$$

$$P2 = 4x^3 + 2x^2 + 6$$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Result} &= (7+4)x^3 + (5+2)x^2 + 3x + 6 \\ &= 11x^3 + 7x^2 + 3x + 6 \end{aligned}$$

(b) Subtraction of Two Polynomials

Steps same as addition, but subtract coefficients:

$$P1 - P2 = (7-4)x^3 + (5-2)x^2 + 3x - 6$$

(c) Multiplication of Two Polynomials

Steps:

1. For every term in P1, multiply it with all terms of P2.
2. Combine terms with same exponents.

Example:

$$P1 = x + 1$$

$$P2 = x + 2$$

$$\text{Result} = x*x + x*2 + 1*x + 1*2 = x^2 + 3x + 2$$

(d) Polynomial with Two Variables

Example:

$$P(x, y) = 3x^2y + 2xy^2 + y$$

Each node stores:

- Coeff
- Power of x
- Power of y

Structure:

```
struct PolyNode2 {
    int coeff, powx, powy;
    struct PolyNode2* next;
};
```